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“Different Dialects”: examining masculine and feminine honor across gender and ethnicity in an american context

Aaron Pomerantz¹ · Kevin Green² · Duncan McCollum³ · Hairong Song³ · Ryan P. Brown⁴

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Abstract

The psychological study of honor is predicated on hitherto-unexamined assumptions that gendered facets of honor culture meaningfully exists across groups. It is assumed that both males and females, despite having different normative and contextual concerns, share the same concepts of their own and the other genders honor. It is further assumed that honor’s gendered facets can be meaningfully assumed to exist across cultural and geographic groups. However, paradoxically, honor within an American context is studied in a primarily white context based on historical Scots-Irish immigration patterns, and most common measures of honor draw from this. The present paper examines honor’s existence across both gender and ethnicity-based contexts using factorial invariance testing. Two established measures of honor ideology – the Honor Ideology for Manhood (HIM) and the Honor Ideology for Womanhood (HIW) scales – were evaluated for their ability to meaningfully represent the same latent construct of honor across these contexts. Results indicated that the HIM should be re-conceptualized and reorganized into an updated scale, the HIM-R, representing the distinct facets of reputation and retaliation-based concerns for masculine honor. The HIW achieved meaningful invariance across gender groups. Both the HIW and the reconceptualized HIM-R achieved meaningful invariance across ethnicity-based contexts. The implications of these findings for honor research in American contexts is discussed.

Keywords Honor · Culture · Cross-cultural · Gender · Factor analysis · Factorial Invariance

Within social psychology, honor ideology (or “culture of honor”) is conceptualized as a cultural framework centered around norms regarding the gaining, maintaining, and

defense of reputation. Honor is primarily defined in terms of its masculine and feminine “facets,” meaning specific, gender-based expectations and norms for how to garner and uphold reputation (for reviews, see Brown 2016; Nisbett & Cohen 1996; Uskul et al., 2019). Most of the behavioral phenomena linked with honor ideology are gender-specific, including violence against women (Brown et al., 2018; Saucier et al., 2015), stigmatization towards STI prevention in women (Foster et al., 2020), heightened risk of suicide in men (Bock et al., 2019), increased risk-taking in men (Barnes et al., 2012b), and males responding with violence in response to insults (Cohen et al., 1996). However, despite the centrality of gender differences to the psychological conceptualization of honor, there remain a number of untested assumptions.

It is commonly assumed within the literature that males and females meaningfully share the same beliefs and expectations regarding “honorable” masculinity and femininity, and that these shared expectations at the societal level are what create cultures of honor. In other words, it is assumed that men and women in an honor culture are speaking the

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exact same “language” when it comes to the norms, values, and expectations for “honorable” behavior for men and women. It is further assumed that these same gendered facets of honor can be meaningfully assumed to exist across distinct cultural, sub-cultural, and geographic groups. For example, all honor cultures are presumed to possess masculine and feminine facets, and it is assumed that various geographically and ethnically diverse cultures are at least tertiary similar enough that they can all be meaningfully possessing the same “core” of honor (Brown, 2016; Uskul et al., 2019). However, although central to how honor is presently conceptualized and measured within social psychology (Brown, 2016; Rodriguez Mosquera, 2016), such assumptions of honor’s existing across both gender and ethnicity-based groups have been largely untested. However, given certain research findings that challenge these assumptions, it is important that they are re-examined.

Masculine and feminine honor facets

Masculine honor is the more researched, and thus more prototypical facet of honor. Masculine honor is conceptualized as the cultivation of a reputation for toughness, strength, competence, and intolerance of disrespect (Barnes et al., 2012a). Such a reputation is perceived by honor-endorsers as reducing risk to men and those close to them (their “honor circle,” Brown 2016) by signaling that the man is willing to engage in violent retaliation against any affront (Barnes et al., 2012; Nisbett & Cohen 1996). Thus, the two core attributes of masculine honor ideology are widely conceptualized to be reputation and retaliation, with the former being maintained and defended through the use of the latter (Leung & Cohen, 2011; Nisbett & Cohen 1996; Saucier et al., 2016).

Rather than toughness or strength, feminine honor centers on cultivating and preserving a reputation for familial devotion, propriety, sexual purity, and decorum (Barnes et al., 2014; Rodriguez Mosquera, 2016). Women in honor cultures do their utmost to ensure that their behavior does not in any way compromise the reputation of either themselves or their honor circle by being perceived as disloyal, impure, or unfaithful. Failure to uphold their reputation risks not only damaging the reputation of a woman and her honor circle, but violent reprisals to restore the lost or compromised honor, which can manifest as domestic abuse and even so-called “honor killings” (Brown et al., 2018; King, 2008; Vandello & Cohen 2003; Vandello et al., 2009).

Thus, although the specific reputational content of each gender’s honor facet is distinct, they both share a central focus on preserving and maintaining reputation. This has led to a general assumption that measurement of the

facets of masculine and feminine honor can be performed in a “gender independent” way (Barnes et al., 2012, 2014; Guerra et al., 2013; Imura et al., 2014; Saucier et al., 2016). In other words, because honor measures refer to a “real man,” a “good woman,” or are worded personally (e.g., “I would feel bad about myself [if engaging in dishonorable behavior]”), participants’ own genders are not assumed to influence their perception of the other gender’s honor facet. This has led to social psychologists practically, although not explicitly, treating masculine and feminine honor as if they are conceptualized precisely the same way by each gender.

The assumption that the genders share and endorse the same conceptualization of their own and each other’s honor facet is not theoretically sound. Other psychological phenomena, including self-construal (Cross & Madson, 1997; Kashima & Hardie, 2000; Markus & Oyserman, 1989) and the conceptualization of/adherence to cultural norms (Bleidorn et al., 2016; Carlo et al., 2001) are fundamentally shaped by gender, and thus differ between males and females. The same is likely to be true of honor, with each gender construing and endorsing “masculine” and “feminine” honor facets differently. Research indicates this to be the case. Individuals value their own gender’s honor facet, and thus feel more affronted to threats to it, than they do the other gender’s (Rodriguez Mosquera et al., 2002b). Likewise, men and women have been demonstrated to possess notably different values and concerns when conceptualizing what specific norms count as “honorable” for both their own and the other gender (Cihangir, 2013). Such findings challenge the assumption that the genders share and endorse the same conceptualizations of gendered honor facets. Thus, it is necessary for the validity of the constructs of honor ideology that it be clearly established to what extent (if at all) the same latent factors of “masculine” and “feminine” honor can be observed to meaningfully exist and are endorsed across the genders. This will allow us to understand if men and women are speaking the same “language” of honor, similar but different honor “dialects,” or different “languages” entirely. It is also important that we understand to what extent these “languages” exist across ethnic lines within the larger geographic culture of the U.S. and beyond.

Gendered honor across ethnic groups

Unlike with gender, a great deal of research has focused on honor’s existence across distinct ethnic, cultural, and national groups, including Latin American, Middle Eastern, and the Southern American populations (Cross et al., 2012, 2014; Eisner & Ghuneim, 2013; Khour-Kassabri, 2016; Kubrin & Weitzer 2003; Rodriguez Mosquera et al., 2002b; Uskul et al., 2014). Guerra and colleagues (2013)

explicitly examined the factorial invariance of a four-factor honor measure, including facets of masculine and feminine honor, across samples taken from eight nations: The U.S., the U.K., Spain, New Zealand, Macedonia, Japan, Israel, and Brazil. While they only analyzed differences in mean levels of endorsement between the genders, Guerra and colleagues did establish that the same latent factors of gendered honor facets existed across these eight national groups. This research did contain limitations, such as assuming but not demonstrating their honor scales to share the same latent attributes across groups and not accounting or controlling for gender differences. However, overall, this research still demonstrated honor to meaningfully exist in a cross cultural context. Interestingly, however, such studies of ethnic differences in honor have been studied primarily across nations with few efforts to contrast the effects of ethnic group opinions within the U.S.

In American contexts, honor is often conceptualized according to the specific cultural norms and practices of the 18th -century Scots-Irish herdsman who brought honor to the United States (Barnes et al., 2012, 2014; Fischer, 1989; Saucier et al., 2016). While it is important and worthwhile to account for the historical context of psychological phenomena, research on honor within an American context has seemed to presume that honor norms have not spread far beyond their initial ethnic and cultural boundaries. Aggregate analyses of honor-related phenomena are commonly restricted to white participants (Barnes et al., 2012; Berthelot et al., 2008; Brown et al., 2014, 2014, 2018; Cohen, 1996, 1998; Copes et al., 2014), region-level analysis and ranking systems have relied on regional histories of Scots-Irish immigration (Brown, 2016; Nisbett & Cohen 1996; Copes et al., 2014), and many widely-used measures of gendered honor facets come from this explicitly Scots-Irish conceptualization (Barnes et al., 2012, 2014; Brown, 2016; Saucier et al., 2016). While research on the Scots-Irish-based conceptualization of honor as it exists in America is not flawed, it is limited in scope because it only considers only one of many potential forms of honor culture in the United States.

Based on evolutionary honor research (Nowak et al., 2016), the case could be made that in the present-day U.S., minority group members might be just as likely to endorse honor ideology than whites. Persons of color, especially Black and Hispanic/Latino/a/Latino/a persons, are probabilistically more likely to encounter the environmental challenges of lack of law enforcement and resource scarcity that are theorized to be the evolutionary antecedents of honor ideology (Nowak et al., 2016; St. Vil et al., 2018). Strengthening this claim is the finding that many minority group members subscribe to and endorse cultural frameworks that could easily be conceptualized as forms of honor ideology (Felson & Pare, 2010; Kirk & Papachristos, 2006; Kubrin

& Weitzer 2003; Mullens et al., 2004; Stephens et al., 2018; Stewart & Simons, 2010). Indeed, one such phenomenon, known as the “code of the street” (COTS; Anderson 1999) bears an overwhelming similarity to honor ideology, especially its masculine facet.

The COTS is hypothesized to emerge in response to the challenges of urban environments. Specifically, a weak or absence of law enforcement interacts with resource concerns, thus increasing the instrumental benefit of having a reputation for reliably aggressive responses to threats, parallel to the hypothesized adaptive origins of honor ideology (Anderson, 1999; Nowak et al., 2016). The similarities between the COTS and honor ideology are readily apparent, and researchers who have examined the COTS have even remarked upon this similarity before (Stewart & Simons, 2010; Stewart et al., 2006). Further, research has shown that the COTS is not restricted to ethnic minorities, but meaningfully exists in white individuals as well (St. Vil et al., 2018). The case could therefore be made that the COTS is a form of honor culture, emerging and serving as an adaptive strategy in response to specific circumstances within urban environments. However, perhaps because the study of honor in America has focused so intently upon honor’s Scots-Irish conceptualization, a COTS variation of traditionally defined honor culture has been overlooked by honor researchers.

As such, it is prudent for the study of honor ideology, both in and beyond American contexts, to explicitly examine the degree to which the same constructs of masculine and feminine honor emerge and remain invariant across ethnic groups. Such examinations would clarify whether different ethnic groups can be referred to as endorsing the same latent constructs of masculine and feminine honor, and could help bring the study of honor in American contexts towards a more universal focus.

Such a reconceptualization would allow honor research to examine with more nuance gender-based phenomena that have been independently linked to both honor norms and differing ethno-cultural experiences within the United States, including domestic violence and abuse (Adelman et al., 2003; Brown et al., 2018; Kasturirangan et al., 2004; Saucier et al., 2015), men’s risk of suicide (Bock et al., 2019; Forte et al., 2018), and stigma against mental and physical health-care (Brown et al., 2014; Cipollina & Sanchez, 2020; Dinos, 2015; Foster et al., 2020; Griffith et al., 2011). By establishing that honor in the U.S. meaningfully exists outside of a Scots-Irish context, we could further understand, and thereby potentially ameliorate such issues in the multitude of ethno-cultural contexts in which they manifest. However, such efforts would require establishing the extent that masculine and feminine honor can be observed to meaningfully exist across gender and ethnicity-based groups. This was the purpose of the present two-part study.

Present Study

We conducted a two-part study that investigated to what extent the same latent factors of masculine and feminine honor would hold across both gender and ethnicity-based groups using factorial invariance testing. We explicitly measured gender-specific honor dimensions using the Honor Ideology for Manhood (HIM; Barnes et al., 2012a) and Honor Ideology for Womanhood (HIW; Barnes et al., 2014) scales, neither of which has been previously analyzed in such a way.

The HIM was constructed by drawing from two theoretical domains: (1) the use of violence in defense of honor in response to specific honor threats (previously tested with vignettes, e.g., Cohen & Nisbett 1994) and (2) theoretical features that comprise males' "honorable" reputations (Barnes et al., 2012a, p. 1021). Scale items were validated using only a sample of white males (due to honor's Scots Irish origin), and produced three factors at construction that were not able to be clearly delineated. Despite the theoretical background of masculine honor being a two-factor construct (Leung & Cohen, 2011), the presence of these multiple factors was attributed to wording differences in the items, and so the HIM was and continues to be assumed to represent a one-factor construct of masculine honor (Barnes et al., 2012a, p. 1021).

The HIW was constructed to "capture the key features of feminine honor, including concerns about sexual purity, spousal devotion, familial fidelity, and self-sacrifice" (Barnes et al., 2014, p. 644). In doing so the HIW measures endorsement of prototypical representations of how a "good" woman will behave in an honor culture. The HIW was created using exploratory factor analysis on a sample of males and females of ethnicities coded as white and non-white (Barnes et al., 2014). The emerging 12-item scale was assumed to represent a one-factor construct of feminine honor (Barnes et al., 2014).

Although the HIW was created with more attention paid to factor structure than the HIM, neither scale has had its factor structure validated in the manner of our present study. The HIM and the HIW are prominent measures of honor ideology, but a core assumption of each is that responses to scale items are independent of respondent's gender, and both were created according to an explicitly Scots-Irish conceptualization of honor (Barnes et al., 2012, 2014; Brown, 2016). Because of their widespread use, and both scales having been explicitly constructed according to the assumptions that underlie a great deal of honor research both in and beyond American contexts, we believed it prudent to validate both of these scales and examine their underlying assumptions. Thus, we opted to examine the stability and invariance of their underlying factor structures to see

if the structures observed at construction hold or if a different factor structure might be appropriate. We also sought to establish what level of invariance exists across gender and ethnicity-based groups (Kline, 2011). However, it is worth noting that we do not consider these scales to be inherently "the best" measures of honor ideology, and we do believe that similar research is warranted on other scales such as the Honor Concerns Scale (IJzerman, van Dijk, & Galluci), the Masculine Honor Beliefs Scale (Saucier et al., 2016), or the Honor Scale (Rodriguez Mosquera, 2016).

We first tested the fit of the HIM and HIW's latent factor structures across gender. Given that honor is conceptualized as an inherently gendered phenomenon, gender's potential as a cultural moderator, and the discontinuity between theoretically assumed gender independence and the observed effects of gender on the conceptualization and endorsement of honor facets (e.g., Cihangir, 2013; Rodriguez Mosquera et al., 2002a), we believed that honor should be examined across gender groups before any sort of cross-ethnic examination was conducted. We hypothesized that at least configural invariance (i.e., invariant factor structures; see the Analysis section for further elaboration) would emerge between the genders, but were hesitant to predict whether any more of the more stringent levels of invariance would hold. We believed that there could be significant and fundamental differences between males' and females' endorsement of the latent constructs of masculine and feminine honor. It is possible that although males and females might "speak the same language" of honor ideology, they might speak different "dialects" of this language, reflecting the different contextual and normative concerns of each gender. Just as differences in linguistic dialects can result in misunderstandings of communication, so too could differences in latent factor structures produce "misunderstandings" in endorsement of cultural norms, and this would be expressed by relatively low levels of invariance across the genders.

Hypotheses 1 and 2: factor structure of the HIM and HIW

As state previously, the HIW, at its initial construction, produced a one-factor solution reflection the general theoretical conceptualization of feminine honor (Barnes et al., 2014; Rodriguez Mosquera, 2016). We therefore expected a one-factor structure to hold for the HIW (Hypothesis 1). In contrast, the HIM had multiple factors emerge at its construction and was constructed drawing from theoretically distinct domains of honor, i.e., reputational concerns and retaliation norms (Barnes et al., 2012, p. 1021; Leung & Cohen 2011). Additionally, the items dealing with retaliation and reputation have been observed to behave differently in research (Pomerantz & Brown, 2019). We therefore expected a

two-factor structure to best fit the data, as opposed to the previous unidimensional conceptualization (Hypothesis 2).

Hypotheses 3 through 6: Factorial Invariance of the HIM and HIW across Genders

We expected at least configural invariance to emerge for both the HIW (Hypothesis 3) and the HIM (Hypothesis 4), indicating that the genders do share *generally* the same conceptualizations of honor. However, given that research has indicated that males and females weigh different elements and specific concerns of both their own and the other gender's honor facets differently (Cihangir, 2013; Guerra et al., 2013), we did not expect any stricter level of invariance being able to hold across the genders for either measure, in light of the previously remarked-upon research highlighting the incongruities in honor perceptions between the genders.

Because brief measures of both masculine and feminine honor had been observed to exhibit invariance across numerous national groups, we expected that the HIM (Hypothesis 5) and the HIW (Hypothesis 6), as conceptualized in Hypotheses 1 and 2, would achieve at least configural invariance across ethnic groups in an American context while holding gender as a covariate. Due to the HIM and HIW being conceptualized according to the Scots-Irish conceptualization of honor, we were unsure if any stronger invariance would hold across ethnic groups, although the existence of phenomena like the COTS made us believe that stronger invariance levels might emerge.

Method

Participants

Participant data came from five semesters of mass-testing during an introductory psychology course at a large, south-western university ($N=4,598$) in the United States. Only participants who followed instructions (i.e., answering all relevant questions and passing all attention checks) were included in the final sample. In addition, we opted to remove participants ($N=120$) who had not been born in the U.S., as we were unsure of the length of time in which they had lived in the U.S., and thus of the degree to which they had been habituated to American honor norms. Removing non-US-born participants caused two ethnic groups – Asians ($N=27$) and Pacific Islanders ($N=18$) – to be under-represented in the sample and thus excluded from analyses.

Our final sample size was $N=4,433$ (2,894 females, 1,532 males; M age = 20.96, $SD=2.35$). Sample sizes for four ethnicities were as follows: Caucasian ($N=3,660$), African-American ($N=282$), Native American ($N=267$),

and Hispanic/Latino/a/Latino/a ($N=217$). This sample was then randomly split into two subsamples, one for each set of comparisons (for gender, $N=2,224$; for ethnicity, $N=2,202$) in line with the recommendation of Comrey & Lee (1992). These sample sizes are considered to be “excellent” for the purposes of factor analysis (Pearson & Mundfrom, 2010).

Our final sample for analysis across gender consisted of 2,224 participants (783 males, 1,441 females; M age = 20.98, $SD=2.28$; Caucasian = 1,852, African-American = 138, Native American = 133, Hispanic/Latino/a/Latino/a = 101). Our final sample for analysis across ethnicity consisted of 2,202 participants (749 males, 1,453 females; M Age = 20.95, $SD=2.33$; 1808 Caucasian, 144 African-American, 134 Native American, 116 Hispanic/Latino/a. It should be noted that the smaller number of non-white participants compared to white participants did not allow analyses to evaluate possible gender by ethnicity interaction effects; splitting each ethnicity by each of the two genders (male and female) produced samples too small to be considered appropriately sized to conduct the invariance analyses. While these sample sizes are unequal, the use of SEM methodology such as confirmatory factor analysis does not necessitate equal sample sizes for cross-group comparison, and each of these samples contains a sufficient number of participants from which to draw reliable conclusions (Kline, 2011; Tabachnick & Fidell, 2018; Wolf et al., 2013).

It should be noted that the labels used for different ethnic groups (e.g., Hispanic/Latino/a/Latino/a instead of simply Latino/Latina/LatinX) are the result of the use of archival data being used, rather than our intention to utilize/not utilize specific labels. Issues with sample sizes and populations from which the samples were drawn will be elaborated in the [limitations](#) section.

Measures

Honor ideology for Manhood (HIM) The 16-item HIM scale ($\alpha=0.93$) was administered to all participants as a part of mass-testing via the department's online data-gathering protocol at the beginning of each semester. The HIM's items assess participants' beliefs about the behavior of a prototypically honorable man, including explicit references to justified retaliation norms (e.g., “A man has the right to act with physical aggression toward another man who calls him an insulting name”) and beliefs about the reputation of a “real man” (e.g., “A real man can always take care of himself”; See Appendix A). Scale anchors range from 1 (“strongly disagree”) to 9 (“strongly agree”).

Honor ideology for Womanhood (HIW) The 12-item HIW scale ($\alpha=0.91$) had likewise been administered to all

participants as a part of mass testing. The HIW is designed to “capture the key features of feminine honor, including concerns about sexual purity, spousal devotion, familial fidelity, and self-sacrifice” (Barnes et al., 2014, p. 644) via 12 items (e.g., “A respectable woman knows that what she does reflects on her family name,” see Appendix C for full list of items). Scale anchors range from 1 (“strongly disagree”) to 9 (“strongly agree”).

Analysis plan

We made use of factorial invariance testing to evaluate the latent factor structures of the HIM and the HIW across males and females (Millsap, 2011). Factorial invariance testing has been widely utilized to compare the psychometric properties of psychological instruments across groups, especially for analysis between and within cultures and ethnicities (Bleidorn et al., 2016; Lins de Holanda Coelho et al., 2016; Spencer-Rodgers et al., 2010; Mesquita & Leu, 2007; Milfont & Fischer, 2015; Raykov et al., 2012). Factorial invariance testing operates by sequentially imposing constraints on a factor model. To test each level of invariance, it is necessary for the previous level to have been established (Kline, 2011).

Configural invariance refers to the same pattern of loadings holding across groups, meaning that each group conforms to the same basic factor structure configuration. Metric invariance further constrains all factor loadings to be equal numerically across groups, thereby indicating that the scale items manifest the construct in the same way across groups. Scalar invariance additionally constrains the model’s intercepts across groups, indicating no observed

mean differences are due to differences in social norms or response tendency held by members from different groups. Finally, strict factorial invariance constrains not only factor structure, loadings, and intercepts, but also item residual variances across groups, indicating that the entire measures function identically and are equally reliable across groups. While strict invariance is rarely accomplished in practice, the methodological consensus is that at least metric invariance must be established to truly refer to the “same” construct existing across groups (French & Finch, 2016). It is also worth noting that “partial” invariance may be established across groups, if at least two items per latent variable are able to be constrained. It has been argued that as long as partial-scalar invariance is established, meaningful comparisons can be made across groups, i.e., differences between groups can be attributed to group membership as opposed simply to the groups’ not conceptualizing and endorsing the same latent construct (Byrne et al., 1989; Lai et al., 2019; Steinmetz, 2013).

A series of models were fit to the data using multi-group confirmatory factor analysis in Mplus (Muthén & Muthén, 2017), following the protocol described by Widaman & Reise (1997). First, minimum identification constraints were applied to test the fit of a configural model. Fits of increasingly restrictive models were tested after the fit of the configural model was determined. Further constraints were not imposed on the model once an acceptable level of fit, as indicated by all of our fit indices, was established and the next most restrictive model failed to fit the data. Evaluation of the models’ fit relied on four fit indices: χ^2 , root mean square error of approximation (RMSEA; Browne & Cudeck 1993), standardized root mean square residual (SRMR; Chen 2007; Kline, 2011; Hu & Bentler, 1999), and

Table 1 Means, standard deviations, and Welch’s t-test results for the HIM and HIW across males and females

Item	HIM Mean (SD)		t-test (df)	HIW Mean (SD)		t-test (df)
	Females	Males		Females	Males	
1.	3.31 (2.00)	4.23 (2.23)	9.58** (1462.19)	6.50 (2.24)	6.07 (2.06)	2.68** (1745.14)
2.	5.23 (2.16)	5.90 (1.99)	7.43** (1721.37)	6.55 (2.14)	6.25 (2.03)	3.17** (1699.78)
3.	4.83 (2.41)	5.57 (2.44)	6.85** (1591.04)	5.80 (2.58)	6.31 (2.36)	3.70** (1704.40)
4.	5.72 (2.33)	5.96 (2.16)	2.39* (1709.45)	6.19 (2.31)	6.02 (2.15)	0.56 (1728.00)
5.	4.41 (2.33)	5.70 (2.32)	12.57** (1612.98)	6.66 (2.28)	6.96 (2.14)	0.68 (1711.86)
6.	5.79 (2.16)	6.29 (1.92)	5.64** (1769.43)	7.25 (1.87)	6.81 (1.85)	4.58** (1554.19)
7.	4.64 (2.13)	4.87 (2.17)	2.46* (1603.55)	7.45 (1.79)	6.98 (1.81)	6.92** (1523.27)
8.	4.95 (2.41)	6.13 (2.17)	11.74** (1756.87)	7.13 (1.87)	6.92 (1.82)	2.98** (1571.34)
9.	5.89 (2.11)	6.40 (1.92)	5.80** (1739.46)	6.73 (2.30)	6.18 (2.16)	4.06** (1715.49)
10.	6.53 (2.24)	7.43 (1.85)	10.19** (1877.67)	7.77 (1.87)	7.74 (1.79)	1.03 (1599.51)
11.	3.31 (2.02)	4.04 (2.22)	7.71** (1478.56)	7.52 (1.87)	7.13 (1.80)	5.52** (1550.79)
12.	4.45 (2.28)	5.98 (2.18)	15.54** (1655.98)	7.37 (1.92)	6.70 (2.00)	8.25** (1530.78)
13.	4.72 (2.35)	6.11 (2.22)	13.75** (1687.53)			
14.	4.14 (2.08)	4.65 (2.03)	5.53** (1640.57)			
15.	4.48 (2.38)	5.47 (2.48)	9.12** (1548.84)			
16.	3.19 (1.83)	3.80 (1.94)	7.22** (1530.10)			

Note. $N = 2,224$ (1,441 females, 783 males) * = $p < .05$, ** = $p < .001$

the Tucker-Lewis index (TLI; Cangur & Ercan 2015). When comparing the relative fit of nested models, we examined changes in χ^2 , as these differences follow a χ^2 distribution with degrees of freedom equal to the difference in degrees of freedom between both models (Song, Thompson, & Ferrer, 2009). An insignificant result for this χ^2 difference test indicates that the restrictions (i.e., greater levels of invariance) imposed upon the model does not harm the overall model fit, and so the model with the more stringent constraints can be accepted. A significant χ^2 difference test indicates the opposite.

Results

Hypotheses 1 and 2: factor structure

All data and code relating to this research are available upon request from the corresponding author. Correlation matrices that can be used to replicate these analyses are included as supplementary materials. Means and standard deviations for all variables are presented by gender in Table 1. For all items of the HIM, the means for males were significantly higher than those for females. For the HIW, females scored significantly higher than men on all items except item 3 (“A good woman stands by her man at all times”), on which men ($mean=6.31$, $SD=2.36$) scored higher than women ($mean=5.80$, $SD=2.58$), $t(1704.40)=3.70$, $p<.01$, and items 4, 5, and 10, on which no significant difference existed between genders (see Appendix C for the wording of these items).

Analyses of the HIM on all participants revealed that the one-factor model of the HIM achieved acceptable fit using the chi-square test ($\chi^2/df=4155.73/215$, $p>.05$), but did not satisfy benchmark coefficients for acceptable fit for the other three indices (RMSEA=0.13; SRMR=0.09; TLI=0.78; see Table 2 for full details of these analyses). Next, a two-factor model was assessed to determine whether the HIM was best interpreted as a unidimensional or multi-dimensional scale.

Specifically, we tested whether items measuring attitudes toward reputation displayed a markedly different pattern of means compared to items measuring attitudes toward retaliation (Pomerantz & Brown, 2019). RMSEA did not indicate satisfactory fit of this two-factor model, but the three other indices did ($\chi^2/df=1858.47/198$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.09; SRMR=0.05; TLI=0.90). Items 11 (“A real man will never back down from a fight”) and 16 (“A real man never leaves a score unsettled”) did not clearly load onto either factor as indicated by modification indices. We thus opted to test another two-factor model that excluded these two items from analysis, which we called the Honor Ideology for Manhood-Revised (HIM-R) Scale. This model achieved a better fit than the previous model, reaching acceptable fit on all fit indices ($\chi^2/df=1062.81/144$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.08; SRMR=0.05; TLI=0.94).

Analyses of the HIW on all participants revealed that the one-factor model of the HIW achieved acceptable fit using all of our fit indices ($\chi^2/df=759.09/106$; RMSEA=0.08; SRMR=0.04; TLI=0.93).

Hypotheses 3 and 4: factorial invariance across gender

Next, we tested factorial invariance of the two-factor model of the HIM across participant gender (Table 2). These analyses indicate that a two-factor model achieving partial-metric invariance (Model A5) best represented the data ($\chi^2/df=1072.98/177$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.07; SRMR=0.04; TLI=0.94). Loadings for items 4, 5, 6, and 7 of the Retaliation sub-factor were found to differ across gender, with females having higher loadings than males, while all items of the Reputation sub-factor were found to be equivalent (see Appendix B for item wording; see supplemental materials for factor loadings). These results suggest that the latent masculine honor trait is best conceptualized as a bi-dimensional construct composed of both reputation and retaliation, and that this conceptualization maintains its structure

Table 2 Fit indices for factorial invariance testing across gender groups for the HIM, HIM-R, and HIW

Model	χ^2/df	RMSEA	SRMR	TLI	$\Delta\chi^2/\Delta df$	<i>p</i> -value
A1. One-Factor HIM	4155.73/215	0.13	0.09	0.78	-----	-----
A2. Content-Split HIM	1858.47/198	0.09	0.05	0.90	-----	-----
A3. HIM-R (Configural)	1062.81/144	0.08	0.05	0.94	-----	-----
A4. HIM-R (Metric Invariance)	1118.73/156	0.08	0.05	0.94	55.92/12	<0.01
A5. HIM-R (Partial Metric Invariance)	1072.98/152	0.07	0.04	0.94	10.17/8	0.25
B1. HIW (Configural)	759.09/106	0.08	0.04	0.93	-----	-----
B2. HIW (Metric Invariance)	791.57/117	0.07	0.05	0.93	32.47/11	<0.01
B3. HIW (Partial-Metric Invariance)	768.65/115	0.07	0.04	0.93	9.56/9	0.39

Note. RMSEA = root mean square error of approximation; CFI = comparative fit index; SRMR = standardized root mean square residual index; $\Delta\chi^2$ = change in chi-square from the immediately preceding model; Δdf = change in degrees of freedom from the immediately preceding model; *p*-value = probability associated with the $\Delta\chi^2$ value

across males and females, although there may be differences in strength of endorsement across the genders.

Another set of multi-group confirmatory factor analyses was performed to test the factor structure of the HIW across gender (Table 2). These analyses revealed that the configural, one-factor model was acceptable ($\chi^2/df=759.09/106$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.08; SRMR=0.04; TLI=0.93). A one-factor model possessing a partial-metric model of invariance (Model B3) was found to best represent the data ($\chi^2/df=768.65/115$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.07; SRMR=0.04; TLI=0.93), with items 6 and 7 behaving differently across genders (see Appendix C for full items; see supplemental materials for specific differences in loadings).

The establishment of partial-metric invariance for both the HIM-R and the HIW across gender groups indicates that while the genders share the same general “shape” (i.e., factor structure) for their conceptualizations of masculine and feminine honor, there are still important differences for each

gender that mean we cannot truly refer to the “same” factors existing across groups.

Hypotheses 5 and 6: Factorial Invariance Across ethnicity

Means and standard deviations for all items are presented by ethnicity in Table 3. Our analyses of invariance across gender made it clear that, as only partial-metric invariance was able to be established across gender, it would be important to control for the effects of participant gender when attempting to examine the extent to which different ethnicities endorse the same latent constructs of masculine and feminine honor (French & Finch, 2016). We therefore conducted a series of multiple indicator, multiple cause (MIMIC) models to test the previously-established factor structure of both measures across our four ethnic groups while using gender as a covariate. For the HIM-R, the configural model achieved an acceptable fit ($\chi^2/df=1552.66/336$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.08;

Table 3 Means and standard deviations for the HIM-R and HIW across ethnicities

Item	Caucasians	African-Americans	Native Americans	Hispanic/Latino/a/Latino/a
	M (SD)	M (SD)	M (SD)	M (SD)
<u>HIM-R</u>				
<u>Retaliation</u>				
1.	3.60 (2.06)	4.30 (2.09)	3.72 (2.32)	3.61 (2.18)
2.	4.95 (2.39)	5.53 (2.38)	5.33 (2.40)	4.78 (2.48)
3.	4.81 (2.33)	5.57 (2.24)	5.18 (2.47)	4.90 (2.48)
4.	5.28 (2.40)	5.97 (2.33)	5.87 (2.39)	5.33 (2.15)
5.	6.75 (2.18)	7.52 (1.73)	7.22 (2.00)	6.97 (2.20)
6.	4.87 (2.34)	5.62 (2.12)	5.18 (2.30)	4.91 (2.34)
7.	5.08 (2.44)	6.14 (2.23)	5.66 (2.27)	5.03 (2.36)
8.	4.67 (2.41)	5.78 (2.47)	5.03 (2.41)	4.83 (2.47)
<u>Reputation</u>				
1.	5.38 (2.12)	6.31 (1.99)	5.55 (2.21)	5.59 (2.01)
2.	5.62 (2.24)	6.81 (2.13)	5.99 (2.21)	5.74 (2.24)
3.	5.88 (2.07)	6.53 (2.17)	6.28 (1.80)	6.05 (2.04)
4.	4.72 (2.11)	5.38 (2.13)	5.04 (1.95)	5.03 (2.07)
5.	5.93 (2.07)	6.40 (2.09)	6.36 (2.05)	5.89 (2.03)
6.	5.93 (2.07)	6.40 (2.09)	6.36 (2.05)	5.89 (2.03)
<u>HIW</u>				
1.	6.30 (2.18)	6.56 (2.28)	6.71 (2.21)	6.54 (2.21)
2.	6.45 (2.12)	6.34 (2.16)	6.58 (1.99)	6.37 (2.06)
3.	5.91 (2.53)	6.44 (2.29)	6.35 (2.46)	6.02 (2.51)
4.	6.08 (2.27)	6.41 (2.22)	6.50 (2.23)	6.17 (2.14)
5.	6.72 (2.24)	6.97 (2.25)	7.10 (2.16)	6.77 (2.23)
6.	7.08 (1.86)	7.04 (2.03)	7.43 (1.85)	7.16 (1.95)
7.	7.25 (1.81)	7.65 (1.88)	7.43 (1.72)	7.44 (1.71)
8.	7.03 (1.86)	7.22 (1.81)	7.34 (1.86)	7.02 (1.73)
9.	6.53 (2.28)	6.69 (2.19)	6.70 (2.21)	6.28 (2.30)
10.	7.74 (1.85)	7.74 (1.94)	7.91 (1.74)	7.87 (1.81)
11.	7.33 (1.88)	7.52 (1.71)	7.69 (1.79)	7.78 (1.53)
12.	7.12 (1.97)	6.91 (2.10)	7.37 (2.07)	7.39 (1.77)

Note: $N=2,202$ (1,453 females, 749 males; 1808 Caucasian, 144 African-American, 134 Native American, 116 Hispanic/Latino/a/Latino/a)

SRMR=0.04; TLI=0.92), and so we tested factorial invariance across ethnicity.

These subsequent analyses revealed that the model best-representing the data was a partial-scalar model of invariance ($\chi^2/df=1597.74/375$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.08; SRMR=0.05; TLI=0.93), although only item 6 of the reputation subscale was able to have its intercept constrained across all ethnic groups, and so it is better to consider this model as being fully-metric (French & Finch, 2016), as all loadings were able to be constrained, but only one intercept could be constrained without negatively affecting model fit. This model is thus best interpreted as implying that the latent trait of masculine honor, as assessed by the two-factor HIM-R, is conceptualized the same way and can thus be suitably measured across ethnic groups (French & Finch, 2016).

A series of MIMIC models holding gender as a covariate was performed to test the factor structure of the HIW across ethnicity (Table 4). Our initial configural model achieved acceptable fit ($\chi^2/df=1224.28/277$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.08; SRMR=0.06; TLI=0.91), and so we tested factorial invariance across ethnicity. These analyses revealed that a partial-scalar model of invariance best represented the data ($\chi^2/df=1233.26/286$, $p>.05$; RMSEA=0.08; SRMR=0.06; TLI=0.92), with items 2, 10, and 12 able to have their intercepts constrained to be equal across ethnic groups. These results can be interpreted as indicating that feminine honor ideology, as measured by the HIW, is conceptualized the same way across ethnic groups, and that a great deal of the construct of “feminine honor” is regarded as being of equal importance to that conceptualization across ethnic groups.

Discussion

Factor structure

We had expected that a one-factor structure would best represent feminine honor as measured by the HIW (Hypothesis 1), while a two-factor structure would best represent masculine honor as measured by the HIM (Hypothesis 2). Both Hypotheses 1 and 2 were upheld by our results. Results indicated that the HIW best represented a one-factor structure

for feminine honor, while the HIM, reconceptualized and re-organized into the HIM-R scale, best represented a two-factor (reputation and retaliation) structure for masculine honor. These results conform to both extant assumptions regarding feminine honor (e.g., Rodriguez Mosquera 2016; Uskul et al., 2019) and both theoretical assumptions and research findings that indicate masculine honor to be a two-factor construct (Leung & Cohen, 2011; Pomerantz & Brown, 2019).

Invariance Across gender

We had expected at least configural invariance to emerge for both the HIW (Hypothesis 3) and the HIM (Hypothesis 4). Both of these hypotheses were upheld, with both the HIW and the HIM-R achieving partial-metric invariance, indicating that several items on both measures were able to have their intercepts constrained across gender groups.

For the HIW, only two items dealing with family traditions and intolerance of disrespect (items 6 and 7; see Appendices for wording and supplemental materials for loadings) were unable to have their factor loadings constrained across males and females, and males. Interestingly, males exhibited the higher factor loading for these specific concerns. This indicates that while the construct of feminine honor is conceptualized similarly across gender groups, it is not precisely the same. While both males and females share the same factor structure for feminine honor (configural invariance), they assign different levels importance (i.e., different factor loadings) to specific elements of that factor structure.

As with the HIW, the HIM-R achieved partial-metric invariance. All of the items of the reputation subscale were able to be constrained across males and females, but only half of the retaliation subscale’s items were able to be constrained. Items 4, 5, 6, and 7 of the retaliation subscale, dealing specifically with property concerns and protection of children, were allowed to freely vary across groups, with women’s loadings being higher than men. This indicates that, at least regarding when honorable men are justified in using violence, men and women have similar, but not the same conceptualizations of masculine honor. In both cases, it could be said that males and females are speaking the

Table 4 Fit indices for factorial invariance across ethnic groups for the HIM-R and HIW

Model	χ^2/df	RMSEA	SRMR	TLI	$\Delta\chi^2/\Delta df$	<i>p</i> -value
C1. HIM-R (Configural)	1552.66/336	0.08	0.04	0.92	-----	-----
C2. HIM-R (Metric Invariance)	1595.65/408	0.08	0.05	0.93	42.99/36	0.20
C3. HIM-R (Scalar Invariance)	1714.97/414	0.08	0.08	0.93	162.31/78	<0.01
C4. HIM-R (Partial-Scalar Invariance)	1597.74/375	0.08	0.05	0.93	45.02/39	0.24
D1. HIW (Configural)	1180.57/244	0.09	0.05	0.91	-----	-----
D2. HIW (Metric Invariance)	1224.28/277	0.08	0.06	0.92	43.72/33	0.10
D3. HIW (Scalar Invariance)	1283.49/313	0.08	0.06	0.93	102.92/69	0.01
D4. HIW (Partial-Scalar Invariance)	1233.26/286	0.08	0.06	0.92	52.691/42	0.13

same “language” of honor, but different “dialects” of that language, potentially allowing for potentials for “mistranslation” or “miscommunication” regarding the gendered facets of honor.

This difference between the genders for their conceptualizations of their own and the other genders’ honor facet makes theoretical sense, given that males and females do not share the same reputation concerns in cultures of honor. While reputation is the core social good for males and females, the specific content of each gender’s reputation, and thus the behavioral means for garnering, maintaining, and defending it, vary between the genders (Brown, 2016; Uskul et al., 2019). It is thus unsurprising that, although the genders share the same “general language” regarding honor, their own specific concerns and norms will make different elements of their own and the other gender’s honor facet more relevant and thus distinct – i.e., *variable* – from the other gender’s similar conceptualizations, as has been observed with other cultural phenomena (Bleidorn et al., 2016; Carlo et al., 2001).

Thus, as a matter of measurement, the assumption of gender independence is untenable, and analyses attempting to research honor must at the very least control for the effects of gender, if not explicitly examine them, in order to be sure of their findings. However, our results also have implications beyond the issue of measurement. Our results highlight the importance and necessity of no longer considering gender to be a part of the theoretical background of honor ideology, but rather an issue that must be specifically investigated and examined. Given how many behavioral consequences of honor relate to gender, especially domestic abuse and violence towards women (Brown et al., 2018; Saucier et al., 2015; Stratmoen et al., 2020) and risky health decisions made out of fear of appearing “impure” (Foster et al., 2020), future research should attempt to determine how differences between each gender’s perception of the other’s honor endorsement manifest in perceptual, attitudinal, and behavioral arenas.

One potential direction that such research could take would be examining the role that gender differences in honor conceptualization plays in cultural transmission. While both men and women play important roles in transmitting cultural norms to the next generation, in cultures of honor, it is generally women who have the primary responsibility of ensuring that children are taught honor norms (Berthelot et al., 2008). However, if women are given the primary role of transmitting honor norms, it is possible that it is women’s conceptualization of both masculine and feminine honor that is transmitted and then subsequently reinterpreted by the males and females of that next generation. This would mean that honor culture is essentially “matrilineal,” at least in how norms are conceived and passed on, and that there

may be greater stability in how feminine honor is conceived across generations as opposed to how masculine honor is perceived. However, it should also be noted that the HIW, due to its unidimensional factor structure, was more likely to be stable than the two-factor HIM-R was. Future research on feminine honor might benefit from attempting to deepen and expand the conceptualization of feminine honor by not only examining what men and women commonly perceive as “honorable” behavior for women, but also exploring what particular differences might exist between the genders. Our results would set the stage for this or similar research to be conducted.

Invariance Across ethnicity

We had expected at least configural invariance to emerge for both the HIW (Hypothesis 5) and the HIM-R (Hypothesis 6). Both of our hypotheses were supported by our results, with partial-scalar invariance established for the HIW and metric invariance for the HIM-R. These results indicate that different ethnicities within the same geographic subculture can be said to meaningfully endorse the same latent constructs of masculine and feminine honor, as has already been observed in cross-national research (Guerra et al., 2013).

It is therefore no longer appropriate, when assessing honor ideology’s aggregate impact, to simply look at white participants, as has been done in research up to this point (e.g., Brown et al., 2018; Copes et al., 2014). Our results also put into question the utility of state ranking systems that specifically tie a region’s honor status to its Scots-Irish population (Brown, 2016; Nisbett & Cohen 1996). While such systems are far from useless, it is likely that they are missing an important part of the picture by ignoring the fact that honor can be transmitted across ethnic lines, and thus even areas without a Scots-Irish population could still be honor endorsers.

These results also have implications for the importance of considering ethnicity when discussing honor-related phenomena. By establishing that different ethnicities do endorse the same latent construct of honor, we have potentially opened up a new avenue for examining “honor-like” phenomena like the “code of the street” as contextual manifestations of honor culture, rather than as distinct phenomena. These results also suggest that specific gender-based issues that have been independently studied in the context of both honor and ethnic/subcultural differences, including domestic violence and abuse (Adelman et al., 2003; Brown et al., 2018; Kasturiraangan et al., 2004; Saucier et al., 2015), men’s risk of suicide (Bock et al., 2019; Forte et al., 2018), and stigma against mental and physical healthcare (Brown et al., 2014; Cipollina & Sanches, 2020; Dinos 2015; Foster et al., 2020; Griffith et al., 2011) should be simultaneously

examined from both perspectives. By establishing that both gendered facets of honor exist across ethnic lines, we have set the stage for the study of honor culture to examine honor's effects across ethnic lines, thereby shedding light on a number of key maladaptive behaviors that have already been linked to this cultural framework, and potentially creating/investigating cultural-context-specific strategies to overcome them.

Methodological contributions of the HIM-R

In addition to addressing specific questions of honor's existence across gender and ethnicity-based groups, our research also produced a revised HIM scale, the HIM-R, that possesses three key advantages over the original measure.

Firstly, it allows us to more clearly differentiate the unique core components of masculine honor ideology, i.e., reputation and retaliation. These two sub-factors were empirically demonstrated to better fit the data than one factor did, indicating that masculine honor contains two related but distinct sub-factors of reputation and retaliation. Given that these factors have already been observed to "behave" differently in research contexts (Pomerantz & Brown, 2019), it is important to differentiate these sub-factors when conducting honor research.

Second, the HIM-R was created using a diverse, multi-ethnic sample involving both genders, as opposed to the single-gender sample used at the HIM's initial construction (Barnes et al., 2012). The sample used for the HIM-R is more reflective of the populations in which the HIM is actually used, demonstrating external validity, such that this scale can meaningfully measure honor across group contexts (Leung & Cohen, 2011), and thereby allows us to be more sure of its external validity, as opposed to merely assuming it due to item wording.

Third, the HIM-R is a refinement of the selection of items on the HIM, rather than a refinement of the content of items. Researchers wishing to re-examine previous findings using archival data in light of the HIM-R may do so easily by rescoring their existing HIM data by dropping items, as has been done with previous scales (e.g., reactance, Thomas et al., 2001).

Limitations

Our study is not without limitations. Firstly, it only examined two measures, the HIM (Barnes et al., 2012) and the HIW (Barnes et al., 2014), which, although both well-established and widely used, are not the "be all and end all" of honor research. Future research would benefit from examining other measures, such as the MHB (Saucier et al., 2016) and

the Honor Scale (Rodriguez Mosquera, 2016) in a similar way to what we have done here. We do not believe that the HIM and the HIW can be objectively said to be the "best" measures of masculine and feminine honor, and it very well might be that other scales are better-suited to achieve greater levels of invariance across gender and ethnicity. However, we still believe that by examining and validating the HIM and the HIW as we have, we have demonstrably contributed to the study of honor ideology.

Secondly, our analyses were run on a college-aged sample in the American Southwest. Although this sample is typical of a great deal of honor research, and of social psychological research more broadly, the degree to which these findings might generalize to non-American honor contexts or to older participants are theoretical questions. Future research would doubtless benefit from such analyses, but we do not believe that this limitation invalidates our findings.

Thirdly, while we have established the factor structures of the HIM and the HIW to hold across ethnic groups, and thus allow for valid comparisons between them, the HIM and the HIW were still constructed primarily based on theoretical assumptions (e.g., Leung & Cohen 2011), rather than derived from exploratory factor analyses (EFA). These scales were crafted based on research investigating Scots-Irish Honor norms as they appear in America. While it is clear that honor cultures exist in non-American and non-Scots-Irish populations, the theory undergirding the honor scales used were created with those populations in mind. As such, despite our primary goal of determining the level of invariance of each scale across demographic lines (gender and ethnicity), it remains a possibility that the items tested may be restricted in scope compared to the totality of what 'honor' is. In other words, while we demonstrated invariance across samples, we do not address possible limitations of content validity inherent with drawing items from a particular sample (college-aged, American adults who tend to be White) when it is possible that other groups (e.g., Turkish honor cultures) may display distinct facets not captured by the present scales.

For the purpose of determining ethnicity-specific varieties of honor or trying to establish a truly cross-cultural measure either within or beyond American contexts, future research might benefit from attempting to construct honor scales via EFA within and across different groups. Indeed, even staying within an American context, there is a great deal of potential utility in explicitly examining the similarities and differences in regional, ethnic, and other subcultural varieties of honor such as the "Code of the Street" or differences between Latino-American and white-American honor norms. However, we do still believe that, by demonstrating the HIM and the HIW to achieve meaningful invariance across ethnic groups, we have allowed for cross-ethnic

comparison of honor, at least within an American context, and interpret our results to strongly suggest that American honor culture has moved beyond its Scots-Irish origins.

Finally, our research questions all treated gendered facets of honor in such a way as assumed a gender binary. Given the evolution and expansion regarding how gender is conceptualized and experienced both in and beyond American culture, future research might benefit from exploring how honor norms interact with non-traditional conceptualizations of gender that exist beyond the traditional binary. Indeed, there is a paucity of research examining how honor might intersect with LGBTQIA+ issues, and examining honor beyond the gender binary might represent a beginning to a rich field of future research.

Conclusions

Overall, we believe that our study has both upheld and challenged several core assumptions in the honor literature. We have demonstrated the hitherto-unexamined assumption of “gender independence,” i.e., assuming that the genders share the same conceptualizations of their own the other gender’s honor facet, is untenable. Instead, the genders speak different “dialects” of the same “language,” sharing the same core focus on the importance of reputation, but with specific concerns and norms being more central to each gender’s conceptualization of both masculine and feminine honor.

We have also validated a widely used measure of feminine honor (the HIW), and revised another widely used measure of masculine honor, the HIM, into the HIM-R, in such a way as to better reflect circumstances of use (e.g., Pomerantz & Brown 2019) and underlying theoretical differences between the genders (Leung & Cohen, 2011). We have also further shown that these measures of masculine and feminine honor ideology can achieve meaningful invariance across ethnicities, meaning that honor can truly be discussed in a cross-ethnic context, and showing that honor research, at least in American contexts, must move beyond honor’s Scots-Irish history.

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Data Availability all data and material are available upon request from the corresponding author. The primary materials are included as supplementary material, and correlational data for replication is also included in supplemental material.

Code Availability All code is available upon request from the

corresponding author.

Declarations

Conflicts of interest/Competing interests The authors have no conflicting/competing interests to disclose.

Ethics approval All data was gathered with the approval of the IRB at the corresponding author’s institution and the study was performed in accordance with the ethical standards as laid down in the 1964 Declaration of Helsinki.

Consent to participate Informed consent was obtained from all individual participants included in the study.

Consent for publication Participants signed informed consent regarding publishing their deidentified data.

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